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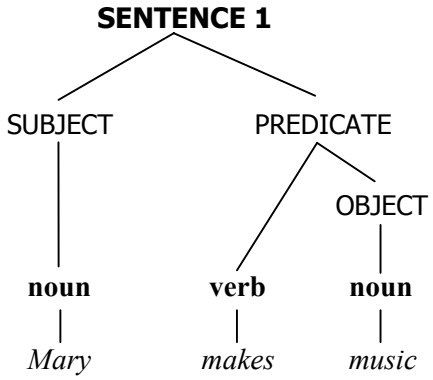
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1 The simple sentence and its parts

1.1 Subject, verb, object

A tree diagram (branching downwards) serves well to show the constituents of a sentence:



Sentence 1 shows us that a sentence must have two main branches: the SUBJECT and the PREDICATE. The subject is usually the 'doer', or the person/thing described. The predicate means 'the rest of the sentence' to put it crudely but simply.

The **verb** conveys an action or state. The OBJECT is the person/thing at the receiving end of the action, hence *music* is the object of the verb *makes*.

Noun, verb, noun (words in bold above and in future sentences) are the constituents called **word classes** or **parts of speech**. Words are classed according to their grammatical properties.

In every sentence there must be a **finite verb**, i.e. a verb with a tense. A verb can change its form to show tense, e.g. *make : made*. The verb in sentence 1 is in the present tense. Tenses are covered in the next three chapters.

SUBJECT:	the 'doer', or where there's no action, the person/thing considered.
PREDICATE:	the rest of the sentence after the subject.
verb:	conveys an action or state, e.g. *to carry, to be.*
OBJECT:	the person/thing at the receiving end of the action.
noun:	a person, place or thing, e.g. *Mary, Beijing, door.*
finite verb:	a verb with a tense.

In sentence 1 the subject and object are **nouns**. They could be **pronouns**: *She makes it.* Pronouns are dealt with in more detail in chapter 7.

pronoun:	a word standing for (pro) a noun, e.g. *he, they.*

Some sentences consist of only one word, e.g. the imperative *Stop!*, but then the missing part is understood and we can construct an 'underlying' sentence, in this case something like *You (will) stop!*

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Teaching note 1.1

Subject-verb-object is logical to English speakers but it may not be the word order of your students' language. Allow time for mental re-formulation and provide lots of rich input (easy listening and reading, with unforced interactions) especially at lower levels, before expecting accurate production.

Task 1.1

Many words can function as nouns or verbs. Two words in the list below cannot serve this dual function. Which are they?

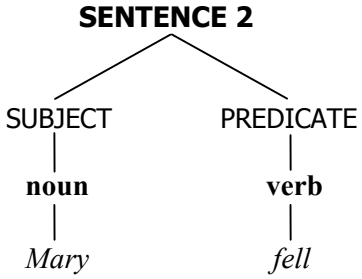
spoon	serve	husband	compost	rile	keep
meet	sloop	convict	effect	remove	rime

Teaching note 1.2

It is advisable to have a dictionary to hand when writing formal work, correcting homework, for use in class, and when using this book. Popular ELT dictionaries include the *Oxford Advanced Learner's Dictionary*, the *Macmillan English Dictionary for Advanced Learners* and similar from other ELT publishers.

Ask the publishers for class materials for use with their dictionaries.

1.2 Subject, verb



In sentence 2 there is no object. Mary didn't fall her body, didn't fall the clarinet, etc. The verb *to fall* can't take an object; it is an **intransitive verb**. Other intransitive verbs are *to cough, to hesitate,* etc.

In sentence 1 the verb *to make* must have an object. We can't just say *Mary makes;* our listener would say *Mary makes what?*. Verbs that must take an object are called **transitive verbs**. Other transitive verbs are *to have, to afford*, etc.

transitive verb: a verb that must take an object.
intransitive verb: a verb that cannot take an object.

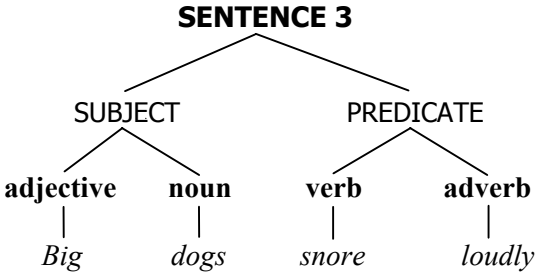
Many verbs may be used transitively … or … intransitively:

Mary sings ballads. *Mary sings.*
John walks the dog. *John walks.*

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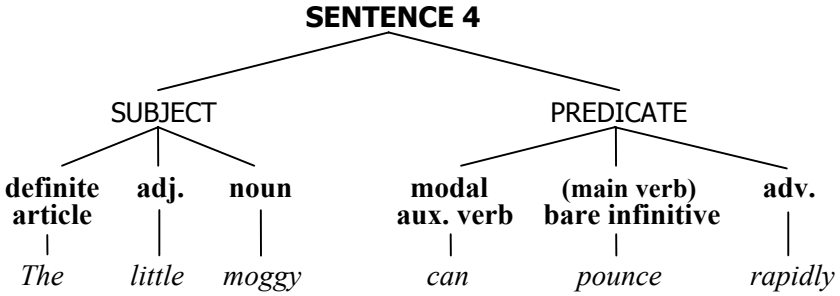
1.3 Adjective, adverb



Sentence 3 reminds us that adjectives mostly come *before* the noun, and adverbs of manner often *follow* the verb (or verb + object). The syntax in **Dogs big loudly snore* may be okay in many languages but not in English (an asterisk at the start of a sentence signifies it is ungrammatical).

adjective:	a word that gives information about (modifies) a noun.
adverb of manner:	a word that gives information about (modifies) a verb.

1.4 The articles, modals, infinitive



In sentence 4 we are introduced to **the definite article**, a **modal auxiliary verb** (shortened to *modal aux*., *modal verb*, even simply *modal*) and **the infinitive**.

The citation form of verbs, e.g. *to swim, to afford, to snore*, is the infinitive, or to be more precise, **the infinitive with *to*** or **the full infinitive**.

Modal aux. verbs, e.g. *may, might, can, could, would,* etc, are followed by the **base form** of the **main verb,** more commonly called **the infinitive without *to*** or **the bare infinitive**.

The imperative (command/order) also uses the bare infinitive form of the verb, e.g. *Strike while the iron's hot.*

definite article:	*the*, indicating the known or unique.
indefinite article:	*a, an,* indicating the not known/the not unique/any one.
modal aux. verb:	*can, could, may, might, will, would, shall, should, must, ought to*. Modals indicate ability, possibility, permission, advice, deduction, etc. They are **followed by the bare infinitive.**
infinitive:	base form of the verb, usually with *to*. It has no tense.
main verb:	a verb which can occur on its own, or after one or more auxiliary verbs, whereupon it carries the most 'sense'. Sometimes called lexical verb.
finite verb (revised):	a verb with a tense, including modal aux. verbs, which although they carry the tense don't show tense marking (inflection).

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2 Verb tenses 1:
Present simple and continuous
Past simple and continuous
Future simple and continuous

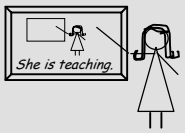
2.1 Present, past and future tenses

There are 3 tenses in English - **present**
past
future

Each of these can be expanded to include certain aspects, as we shall see later.

Our initial look at tenses will consist of a short story. First, just read the story slowly. At this first reading there is no need to learn the titles of the tenses in parentheses - just look and move on.

TENSE SITUATIONS – PART I



Sue is a photographer. She **takes** (PRESENT SIMPLE) photos of famous people for a lifestyle magazine.
But at the moment she **is taking** (PRESENT CONTINUOUS) a course in English Language Teaching.

Sue remembers her first professional assignment. It was in 2003, and her tripod **broke** (PAST SIMPLE) as she **was taking** (PAST CONTINUOUS) a photo of the Sultan of Brunei.

Sue has a grammar 'test' tomorrow morning. She is a little anxious but her colleagues say she **will sail** (FUTURE SIMPLE) through it.
She **will be presenting** (FUTURE CONTINUOUS) a lesson on the past simple and continuous, based on a text about the moon landing in 1969 (… *as he was stepping onto the moon* … etc.).

Part 1 of *Tense Situations* introduces us to the three basic English tenses: PRESENT, PAST and FUTURE.

Note the third person singular *-s* ending in the present simple:

(1st person)	*I*	*take*
(2nd person)	*you*	*take*
(3rd person)	*he/she/it*	*takes*

This is an oddity and may not be acquired easily. Allow for slips, include activities which elicit the third person singular (e.g. the 20 questions game 'What's his/her job?', the guessing game 'Who is this famous person?' etc.), use soft correction and time will look after the rest.

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The table below lists the three basic tenses, PRESENT, PAST and FUTURE, each with SIMPLE and CONTINUOUS aspect (see 2.4), and includes an example and brief statement of the use of each.

Please note that the uses here are very restricted for neatness' sake but are expanded later. For the 'going to' future, *shall* and other uses of *will* see chapter 4.

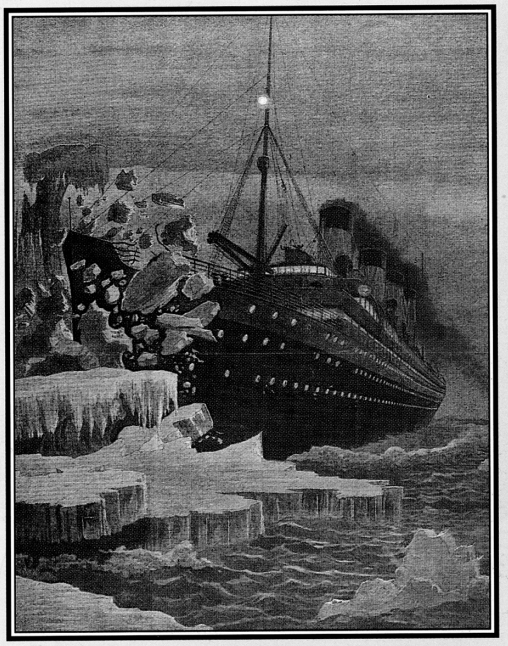
TENSE	EXAMPLE	USE
present simple	*She **takes** photos.*	regular/habitual event; fact; job
present continuous	*She **is taking** a course.*	happening now (temporary)
past simple	*Her tripod **broke**.*	completed past event
past continuous	*She **was taking** a photo.*	'simultaneous' past event
future simple	*She **will sail** through her test.*	prediction of completed event
future continuous	*She **will be presenting** a lesson.*	prediction of 'simultaneous' event / happening as a matter of course.

Focus

1 Before you read. The blockbuster film *Titanic*, told of the tragic events of April 14th 1912, when the luxury liner hit an iceberg and sank, killing 1,523 people.

Read about it

2 How did the disaster happen? Read the text and note down three events which contributed to the tragedy.



Countdown to tragedy

Sunday 14th April
Morning

The *Titanic* was sailing from Southampton to New York. It was the fourth day of her maiden voyage. Bruce Ismay of the White Star Line, the ship's owners, was sailing on the ship. Ismay wanted to arrive in New York a day early and he asked the Captain to increase the ship's speed. The Captain was unhappy, but he agreed. The ship's speed was increased to 21.5 knots.

9.40 pm

The *Titanic*'s wireless operator was working alone, when he received a message from another ship, the *Mesaba*, warning of icebergs in the area. The operator was busy sending and receiving passengers' messages and he did not pass the *Mesaba's* warning to the Captain.

11.00 pm

It was a cold, moonless night. The lookouts were keeping watch, but they weren't using binoculars - the ship's pair were missing.

The first and second-class passengers were relaxing after dinner. The Captain was not on the bridge. He was getting ready for bed in his cabin.

11.37 pm

The two lookouts spotted a huge iceberg. It was about 500 metres in front of the *Titanic*. They telephoned the bridge with the message: 'Iceberg dead ahead.' The Quartermaster spun the ship's wheel as fast as he could. But it was too late. The ship was sailing too fast, and was too big to change direction quickly.

11.40 pm

The *Titanic* hit the iceberg. The ship shook, but most of the passengers were sleeping and were not disturbed.

The Chief Stoker was inspecting the boiler room after the collision, when he saw water pouring through a gash in the ship's hull. The tragedy of the *Titanic* was about to unfold.

From *Ideas and Issues Pre-Intermediate* by G. Sweeney (Chancerel). Past continuous and past simple.

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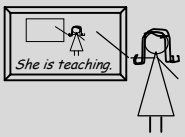
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3 Verb tenses 2: Present perfect Past perfect Future perfect

3.1 Present perfect tense

The two sentences in part 2 of our story below exemplify the PRESENT TENSE, PERFECT ASPECT, or as we telescope it, the PRESENT PERFECT TENSE (with further SIMPLE and CONTINUOUS aspects):

TENSE SITUATIONS – PART II



So far Sue **has written** (PRESENT PERFECT SIMPLE) two essays and four lesson plans.
She **has been working** (PRESENT PERFECT CONTINUOUS) hard for the last few weeks, studying, preparing lessons, surfing the job market.

Please note in the story that although the *writing* and most if not all of the *working* occurred in the *past time* the tense is called *present* perfect. In case you have difficulty with this remember:

1. The auxiliary verb *have* is in the *present* tense;
2. The action has a *present* relevance or consequence;
3. The action occurs in a time zone up to the present.

The grammatical term *perfect* has little if any explanatory value for ELT.

Teaching note 3.1

The present perfect tense in English, unlike many other related languages, does not allow mention of a past time (except with *since*), so concerned is it with the present. **Yesterday we have decided …* is ungrammatical (as indicated by the prefixed asterisk). Even **This morning we have decided …* is ungrammatical when the morning is over.

In contrast, the past tense must be accompanied somewhere in the discourse by a reference to past time. This is a simple but important difference often overlooked in teaching. WHEN A PAST TIME IS MENTIONED THE PAST TENSE MUST BE USED.

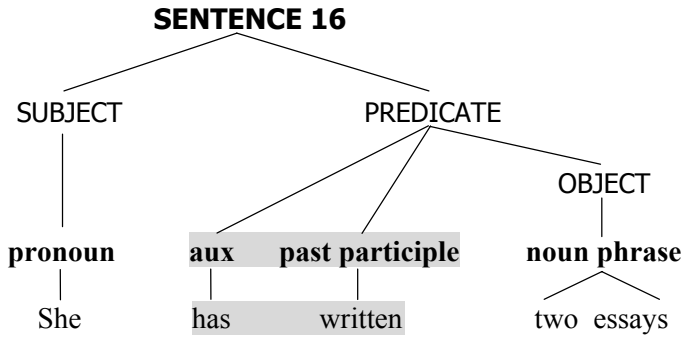
When teaching the difference between the present perfect and the past simple don't push too hard; a little now and again is better than a long tiring session. With good input, interesting topics and communicative activities it will look after itself.

Incidentally, by 'rich/good input' is meant meaningful interaction (and reading/listening) with language containing a good proportion of the targeted language.

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3.1.1 Form of the present perfect simple



Please don't be distracted by the word *past* in *past participle*. The past participle can be used with any tense. The aux. verb here *(have/has)* is a primary auxiliary verb, not a modal.

> **past participle:** the third form of the verb, e.g.
> *broken* as in *break - broke - broken,* or
> *loved* as in *love - loved - loved.*
> (See chapter 12.)

3.1.2 Uses of the present perfect simple

In the example in our story, *she has written...,* we have only dealt with one use of the present perfect simple: **recent event with relevance to the present**. There is one more important use – **an experience or achievement** anytime in one's (present) life. An example of this would be *Sue has been to Peru*, or *Sue has photographed seven royal families*. You notice again we don't mention the past time as we are not concerned with it. What we are concerned with is *Sue*, in the present, through her experience. However, if we wish to shift the focus to the time of her experience we must use the past tense, e.g. *When did she visit Peru?*

1 The grammar in the following sentences is correct, but the sentences don't make sense. The endings have been mixed up. Rearrange the sentences so that they make sense.

a) Have you ever ridden a snake?
b) Have you ever been asked to the top of a mountain?
c) Have you ever met a desert?
d) Have you ever driven a television programme?
e) Have you ever been to make a speech?
f) Have you ever crossed a famous person?
g) Have you ever appeared on a Ferrari?
h) Have you ever caught a horse on the beach?

2 Work with a partner. How do you think your partner would answer each question?

a) Yes, I have.
b) No, never … but I'd like to.
c) No, never … and I wouldn't like to.

From *Inside Out Intermediate* by S. Kay and V. Jones (Macmillan). Present perfect for life experience.

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A time line can show the present perfect and past tense contrasted. The one below is slightly overloaded for economy of space – normally only two, sometimes three, examples are shown:

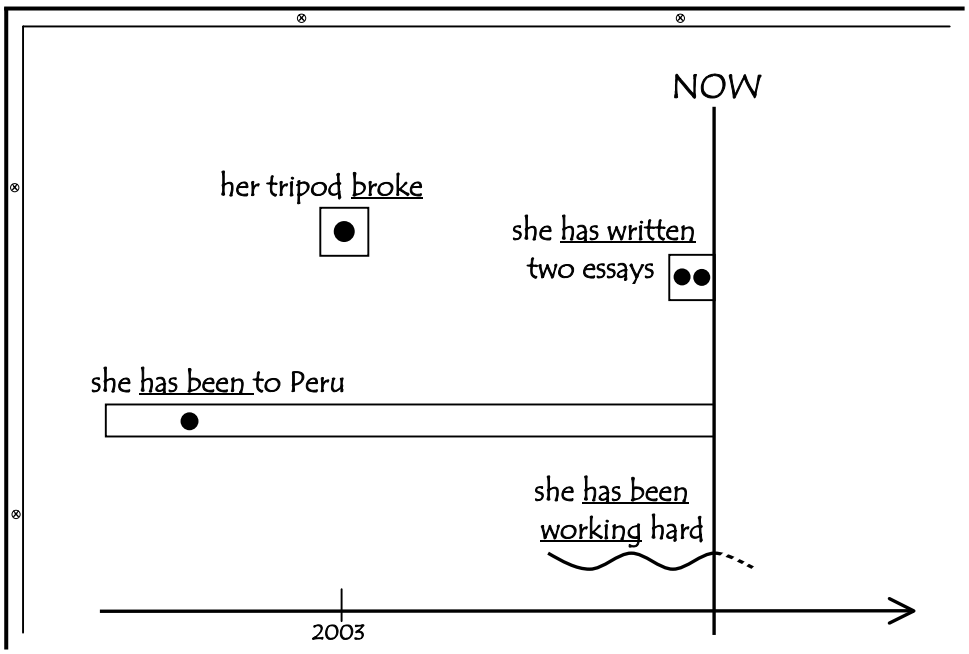


Figure 2. Time line for past simple and present perfect simple and continuous.

3.1.3 Form of the present perfect continuous

In the example *she has been working hard,* the first auxiliary, *has,* as usual, shows the tense. It is followed by the past participle of the second auxiliary *be*, then the main verb *work* in the -ing participle form

	The **tense** is contained in the aux. verb.		
PRESENT	*has*		

	Aux. *have* + past participle make up the **perfect** aspect.		
PRESENT PERFECT	*has*	*been*	
PRESENT PERFECT	*has*	*worked*	

PRESENT PERFECT CONTINUOUS	*has*	*been*	*working*
		Aux. *be* + -ing participle make up the **continuous** aspect.	

Compare and preview:

	The **tense** is contained in the aux. verb.		
PAST PERFECT CONTINUOUS	*had*	*been*	*working*
FUTURE PERFECT CONTINUOUS	*will have*	*been*	*working*

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4 Verb tenses 3:
Future markers
Review tenses
Stative and dynamic verbs

4.1 Four future markers

English doesn't have a future tense in the strict sense of inflecting the verb itself. We have met *will,* a modal auxiliary verb, and the present continuous for future arrangement (2.5), but there are four markers generally used to indicate future time shown below (for *shall* see 4.1.2). Note that with some speakers, especially AmE, *going to* is used instead of *will* in 3 and 5.

MARKER	EXAMPLE	USE
will (usually as *'ll* after pronouns)	1. *We**'ll** play, we'll play, don't worry.*	promise, threat
	2. *I**'ll** get it. **Will** I open it?*	offer
	3. *Rain **will** fall in the west.* / *They**'ll** need more time.*	prediction (fact)
	4. *No buses? I**'ll** get a taxi, then.*	spontaneous decision
	5. ***I think I'll** go for a coffee.**	tentative decision
going to + verb (*be going* + infinitive)	6. *We're **going to** play our hearts out.*	plan (already decided)
	7. *Look out! It's **going to** fall!*	'obvious' future event
present continuous	8. *They**'re playing** here on Saturday.* / *We**'re going** to the zoo tomorrow.*	arrangement ('diary' future), usually mentioning time
present simple	9. *Our train **leaves** at nine tomorrow.*	timetable

*The preceding *I think* is instrumental here, hence the bold font. This phrase is often used as a 'feeler', often with a following remark, to gauge the reaction, invite company, etc.

Other uses of *will* include:

That'll be Susie: supposition. *The car won't start:* refusal. *Will you do me a favour?:* request.
He will smoke where he shouldn't: obstinacy. *I'll have the miso soup:* choosing/ordering.
The PM will talk to the press after the reception: formal announcement of schedule.

4.1.1 Forms and uses of *going to*

I'm going to play consists of the present continuous of *go* followed by the infinitive *to play*. This indicates a future **plan** (we call this **the 'going to' future**).

I'm going to the zoo consists of the present continuous form of *go* followed by the preposition phrase *to the zoo*. The present continuous may indicate present activity or future arrangement.

*We're **going to go** to the zoo* is the present continuous of *go* followed by the infinitive *to go*. Because both verbs are the same we sometimes avoid this phrase, but it does have its uses, mainly emphasising the plan/intention/decision itself, for example [1] explaining altered plans, or [2] replying emphatically to the question *What are you going to do?*:

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[1] *We were **going to go** to the cinema but we went for a stroll instead.*
[2] *I'm **going to go** to the police, that's what I'm going to do!*

On the matter of teaching, most teachers say there is no great difference between, e.g. *I'm going to the cinema tonight* and *I'm going to go to the cinema tonight*, and for lower levels this may be true.

The frequency of use of the *going to* form obliges ELT grammars to include it as a future tense.

And finally, *be going to* is sometimes classified as a (phrasal) modal auxiliary verb. See 13.3.

4.1.2 Uses of *shall*

The use of *shall* for the future is heard mainly in parts of Britain. Coursebooks exclude it, except in the functions of suggestions and offers. A synopsis of its uses is fashioned into the table below.

As a rule of thumb *shall* is only used in the 1st person for predictions, sometimes promises (and suggestions and offers), and has restricted applications in the other persons. *Will*, for those who make the distinction, conveys volition, a willingness (*I won't open it* = it is not my will to open it).

	EXAMPLE	USE
1st person	*We shall be back after the break.*	prediction (/promise)
	I shan't get much sleep tonight.	
	Shall we eat Sichuan tonight?	suggestion
	Shall I open it for you?	offer
2nd person	*You shall have it.*	emphatic promise/order/threat
3rd person	*He shall die!*	
all persons	*The management shall not be responsible for any loss or ...*	officialese

TARA: What about Friday? I'm out in the morning but I've got nothing in the afternoon.
JENNY: Let me see … I've got plans but I can cancel … and I'm visiting another client in the morning so I could come straight to you in the afternoon. Is two o'clock OK?

FRANK: Hello, Ms Mueller. How are you?
SOPHIE: Fine, thank you … but … uh … I'm afraid my flight has been delayed. I'm sorry, but I'm not going to make it to Seoul in time for our appointment.
FRANK: Oh, dear. How long is the delay?
SOPHIE: They say two hours, but most of the flights are delayed. I think it's going to be longer than that.
FRANK: Oh, that's a shame. Well, shall we reschedule our appointment for the same time tomorrow afternoon?

MARTIN: You said you could possibly make Tuesday 4th or Thursday 6th?
KEVIN: Hold on, I'll just check my diary again … er, well, things have changed slightly. I can't do Tuesday now, but Wednesday and Thursday are OK.
MARTIN: Ah. Right, let me have a look … yes, that's OK, we can meet on Thursday 6th then. I'll confirm that in an email to everyone. Thanks, Kevin.

Tapescript extracts from *Business Goals 2* by G. Knight et al (CUP). Futures in arranging appointments and meetings.

Task 4.1

Identify the future forms in the extract above and state their uses.

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7 Pronouns

A pronoun 'stands for' a noun/phrase. Sometimes it can stand for a clause or sentence.

There are several **types of pronoun:**

1. personal pronouns		*I, you, he, she, it, we, they*
2. possessive determiner pronouns (possessive adjectives)		*my, your, his, her, its, our, their*
3. possessive independent pronouns		*mine, yours, his, hers, ours, theirs*
4. demonstrative pronouns		*this, that, these, those*
5. reflexive pronouns		*myself, yourself, herself, themselves,* etc.
6. indefinite pronouns	**a. compound**	*somebody, anyone, no one, anything*, etc.
	b. generic *one/you*	e.g. *One/you never know(s) these things.*
7. *one* as count noun substitute		e.g. *The one(s) in the window, please*.
8. reciprocal pronouns		*each other, one another,* *each/one ... the other, one ... another*
9. interrogative pronouns		*who, whose, what, which*
10. quantifier pronouns		*many, few, all, some,* etc.
11. gender-neutral pronoun		*they*
12. pro-forms		*so, neither/nor, not, then, there*
13. relative pronouns (see chapter 16)		*that, who, which, whose*

7.1 Personal pronouns

	SUBJECT		OBJECT	
	singular	**plural**	**singular**	**plural**
1st person	*I*	*we*	*me*	*us*
2nd person	*you*	*you*	*you*	*you*
3rd person	*he/she/it*	*they*	*him/her/it*	*them*

We have dealt with personal pronouns in chapter 1. The table is reproduced above.

An observation to be made at this time concerns the accepted breaking of the rules of case: the object case is preferred after the verb *be*, even though *be* is not a transitive verb. *It is I/he/she* sounds affected, unless there is a following clause, e.g. *It is I who should apologise*:

"Who's there?" "It's me/her/him." is preferred over *"It is I/he/she."*

Colloquial *give us a hand* instead of *give me a hand* is quite popular and learners at higher levels should be aware of it. The regional *yous* or *ye* or *y'all* (or *you guys)* indicates a desire for a clearly plural second person pronoun, but so far none of these has universal acceptance.

Task 7.1

A student asks which is correct: *between you and I* or *between you and me.* What do you say?

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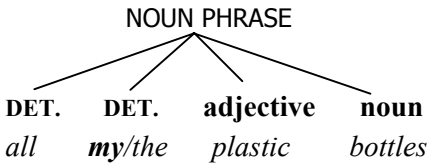
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Task 7.2

It's getting late is one example of *it* used as a 'dummy' subject, in this case for *time*. Can you think of at least one more referent for which *it* is used as a dummy subject?

7.2 Possessive determiner pronouns (possessive adjectives)

	singular	plural
1st person	*my*	*our*
2nd person	*your*	*your*
3rd person	*his/her/its*	*their*



The title *possessive adjective* is actually more often used than *possessive determiner pronoun* but the latter is a more accurate description. Admittedly, in *his car*, the word *his* goes before the noun *car* and to that extent behaves as an adjective, but in **the his car* (compare *the old car)* it shows itself not to be an adjective; it certainly doesn't describe the car itself. *His* also stands for (pro) the noun *John's*, so also performs as a pronoun. Besides, most people would agree that these words 'look like' pronouns so the justification for calling them such is strong.

See 6.1 and 8.1 for more on determiners.

Note: although the term determiner is useful for grammatical analysis it is rarely if ever required in TESOL lessons.

7.2.1 *Its* or *it's*

Be careful with the spelling of *its.* The apostrophe indicates the shortened form of *it is/has*, not possessive:

It's *the dog that bit* ***its*** *tail.*

For more on possessives see chapter 25.

7.2.2 Pronoun or definite article + parts of the body

A pigeon landed on ***my*** *head.* *That bloody pigeon got me on* ***the*** *head.*

Note how we can use either the possessive determiner pronoun or the definite article before a part of the body. With the definite article, however, usage is restricted to a preposition phrase following an object pronoun *(me)*, the context usually being an injury, touch, etc. (these restrictions need not apply in medical/scientific reports).

7.2.3 Possessive determiner pronoun + -ing form

[1] *I didn't like* ***them/their*** *winning the cup.*

[2] (?***Them)/Their*** *winning the cup proved that the championship was ...*

The use of a possessive determiner pronoun before a gerund lends formality. There is a free choice of this or object pronoun in [1] but the choice of object pronoun in [2] is not fully acceptable, certainly beyond the spoken level.

In a small number of grammars this possessive + gerund is called the *gerundive*.

Of course, there is a semantic distinction between, e.g., *I didn't like* ***them*** *singing* and *I didn't like* ***their*** *singing,* the former referring to the fact and the latter to the quality, so the choice is not always simply a matter of register*.

*Register is similar in meaning to formality or style. Register reflects the relationship between speaker and listener (or writer and reader).

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9 Adverbs

9.1 Terminology, functions, formation

An **adverb** is a word giving us information about how, where, when or to what degree something is done, e.g. *do it **quickly**, go **out/home**, leave **today**, **completely** destroyed*.

An **adverbial** is an adverb or any group of words, not necessarily containing an adverb, which functions as an adverb, e.g. *as fast as possible, under the clock, after eight, unfortunately.* Please note that in this book *adverb = adverbial* where convenience allows.

Adverbs do a lot of work. An adverb can modify a verb, an adjective, another adverb, a whole sentence, even post-modify a noun (e.g. *kids **today***).

Some adverbs like *hard, fast,* are called irregular adverbs because they do not add the *-ly* on to the adjective form. Sometimes *quick, slow, tight,* etc, which are normally adjectives, can be adverbs, e.g. *Get rich **quick**; drive **slow*** (informal AmE); *shut it **tight**.*

Task 9.1

1. A student writes *He ran cowardly from me.* Comment.

9.2 Types of adverb

In the table below some adverbs will occur in more than one category. This is a result of some categories not being mutually exclusive (e.g. 4 and 5), but also because some adverbs have a range of meanings.

TYPE OF ADVERB		EXAMPLES
1. manner		*slowly, quickly, peacefully, coolly, well, fast, hard*
2. time		*then, soon, yesterday, at two o'clock, all night, presently*
3. place and direction		*here, there, home, northward, below, abroad*
4. frequency		*always, often, sometimes, seldom, rarely, hardly ever, never*
5. broad negative		*hardly, barely, scarcely, seldom, rarely, never*
6. degree	**a. quantity**	*extensively, completely, partially, hardly* | *much* | *too, enough, so*
	b. intensifier	*very, extremely, really, so* (colloquial)
	downtoner	*fairly, sort of, quite*
	c. 'maximizer'	*absolutely, totally, quite, utterly, really, so* (coll.)
7. focusing		*only, just, (e)specially, mainly, also, too, neither, either*
8. 'completion aspect'		*still, yet, already*
9. dummy subject		*there*
10. discourse marker		Discourse markers are adverbials that modify the whole sentence, e.g. *suddenly, frankly.* See chapter 22.

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9.2.1 Adverbs of manner

These have a great deal of flexibility regarding position:

(Hurriedly,)° she (hurriedly)° dressed (hurriedly)° for dinner (hurriedly)°.

(?*Loudly,)° the captain (loudly)° gave ~~loudly~~ his orders (loudly)° to the crew (loudly)°.*

Initial position is used more in writing, for emphasis or variety. It doesn't readily accommodate adverbs that focus somewhat on the perception of the activity.

9.2.2 & 9.2.3 Adverbs of time and place

These usually go in end position, but may be fronted for topicality or emphasis:

(Tomorrow)° they're coming here (tomorrow)°.

(In Xian)° there are thousands of terracotta soldiers (in Xian)°.

When together they can occur in any order, though place may tend to precede time, especially when the adverb of place is one of the closed set type (*here, there,* etc.):

*I'll see you **there at nine**.*

Presently mainly means 'soon' in BrE but means 'now' in AmE.

9.2.4 Adverbs of (general) frequency

These go before the main verb, or after *be:*

*She **rarely** smiles.* *He is **seldom** right.*

They usually follow the (first) auxiliary verb:

*She has **rarely** smiled.* *I should **never** have told him.*

but they precede the semi-modal *have to,* and are flexible with *used to* (split infinitive permitting):

*She **usually** has to share.* *I (always)° used (always)° to (always)° go to Mass.*

These rules of position may be bent for emphasis (e.g. *she never would take the easy option)*, and especially *sometimes, often* and *usually* can appear at the start or end of a sentence. In end position many frequency adverbs tend to be premodified with *very.* Other phrases usually go in end position:

*She wears that ring very **seldom** now.* *She wears it **all the time** now.*

Adverbs of definite frequency go in end position:

*The post comes twice **daily**.*

Complete these sentences with ONE word in each space. Can you do this without looking at the examples above?

1. A: Do you read a lot?
   B: Yes, all the ..... . I usually read ..... least two or three books ..... week.
2. A: Do you go out a lot?
   B: No, not that ..... – maybe once ..... two weeks.
3. A: Do you go to the cinema a lot?
   B: No, ... ever. I don't really like watching films.
4. A: Do you eat out a lot?
   B: No, not ..... much – ..... once a month. I prefer to cook at home.
5. A: Do you watch TV a lot?
   B: Yes, ... the time. I ..... watch at ..... two or three hours a ..... .
6. A: Do you go to a lot of art exhibitions?

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Expressions of frequency.

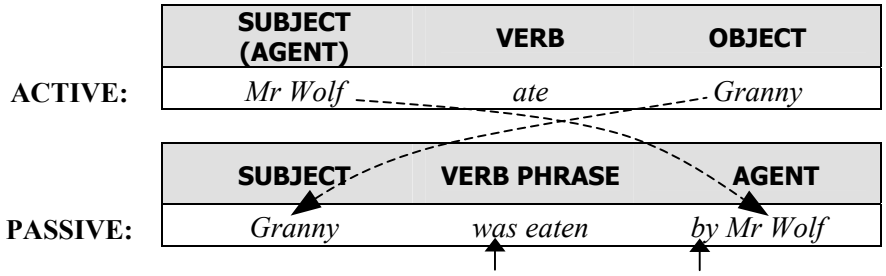
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11 The passive

11.1 Definition and form

The passive is a particular sentence construction:



To change a sentence from active to passive: a) move the object *(Granny)* to the position of grammatical subject (before the verb); b) insert the verb *be* as an auxiliary verb in the tense required *(was)*; c) follow with the **past participle** of the main verb *(eaten),* which must be a transitive verb of course, and, often optionally; d) end with *by* and the agent *(Mr Wolf).* Sometimes an instrument might (also) be mentioned, e.g *with a fork.*

The verb/-phrase changes from the active form (*ate*) to the **passive form** (*was eaten*).

> **the past participle** has two main contexts:
> 1. after the auxiliary *have* in perfect tenses;
> 2. after the verb *be* in passive sentences (transitive verbs only).

11.2 What do we teach?

In communicative language teaching we don't, of course, ask our students to carry out such grammatical gymnastics as in 11.1 above. Like much information in this book, this is for the teacher to know, to enable them to increase their professional knowledge and confidence, and to use in the required measure and at the required time. What do we teach? We teach use.

11.3 Uses of the passive

There are three major uses of the passive:

USE	EXAMPLE
1. To say what has happened to someone/something.	*Did you hear? Fido **was hit** by a car.* *All the crops **have been destroyed** (by locusts).*
2. To avoid mentioning the agent (the person doing the action), who is not required to be or cannot be made known.	*The matter **is being attended to.*** *The bridge **will be repaired.***
3. To conform with normal English discourse, keeping the 'topic' (the 'old', the subject of the previous sentence, here *they)* at the front of the sentence, and the new information in the predicate.	*United played a lousy game … in the end **they were crucified** (by Rovers).* (Compare: *Rovers wanted revenge … in short, they crucified United.)*

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13 Modal auxiliary verbs

13.1 Auxiliary verbs

There are two types of auxiliary verbs: **primary auxiliary verbs**, which comprise *be* (1.5), *have* (3.1.1) and *do* (questions, negatives and emphasis); and the **modal auxiliary verbs** *(can, may, will, should,* etc.*)*. Modal auxiliary verbs are also called modal auxiliaries, modal verbs or modals.

13.2 Definition/function of modals

Modal auxiliaries are followed by (one or more primary aux. verbs and) a main verb (except in the case of inversion, etc.). Unlike the primary auxiliaries (*be, have* and *do*) which mainly have a grammatical function, the modal auxiliaries carry meaning. Although it is an overly strong definition of function you may as a mnemonic interpret *modal* as 'conveying the *mood* or opinion of the speaker', e.g. expressing ability, obligation, advice, possibility, etc.

Remember: the auxiliary verb always carries the tense, even though with most modals it is not visible. A common error is:

He **can clean<u>s</u> his room.*

13.3 List of modals

The following list is of my own construction. Among grammarians there is not full agreement on the terminology/categorization.

MODALS (SIMPLE MODALS)	*can* *could*	*may* *might*	*will* *would*	*shall* *should*	*ought to*	*must*	
SEMI-MODALS	*need*	*dare*	*used to*		*have (got) to*		
PHRASAL MODALS	*had better* *may as well* *might as well* *would rather*	*be +* { *able to, about to, allowed to, apt to, bound to, certain to, due to, going to, liable to, likely to, meant to, supposed to, sure to*					*be to*

13.4 Structure of (simple) modals

Modals are not inflected, i.e. there is no *-ed* for past tense, no *-s* for third person singular present and no preceding *do*. The optional contraction of the negative (which doesn't apply to *may*) is common in informal registers.

Modals are followed by the bare infinitive (infinitive without *to*), so the modal itself carries the tense, although it is not inflected. *Ought* is usually followed by *to*, then justifying relegation to semi-modal status, but in ELT *ought to* is treated equally with *should,* etc, as a modal.

13.5 Uses of (simple) modals

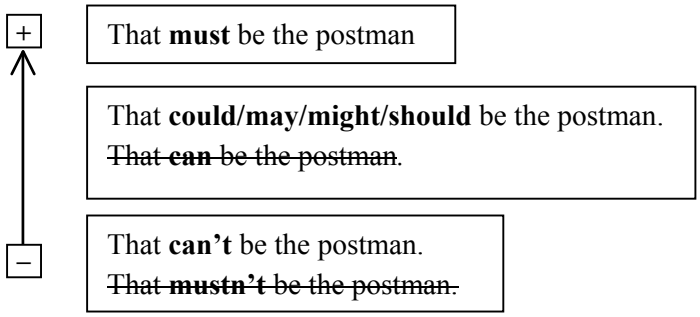
Modals are quite versatile in the meanings they convey. For example, *could* has the functions of asking permission, asking for assistance, making requests, expressing ability in the past, expressing possibility, making suggestions. There are also some synonyms, e.g. *can = may = could* in the function of requesting permission, the choice of modal decided mainly by register.

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13.6 'Deduction' modals

Almost all of the functions of modals have been shown in task 13.1. But because the function of 'deduction/probability' is the basis of many coursebook lessons we include a reminder of it below in diagrammatic form. When we express our assessment of the possibility/probability of a situation/event we usually use these modals (for *will* see 4.1):



13.7 Semi-modals

SEMI-MODALS	*need*	*dare*	*used to*	*have (got) to*

13.7.1 *Need* and *dare*

Need and *dare* operate as modals when followed by the bare infinitive, and as main verbs when followed by the full infinitive, then undergoing any inflection (tense, 3rd person -*s* marking).

Dare can undergo some inflection while remaining a modal.

Need and *dare* as modals usually only appear in [1] negative statements and [2] affirmative questions; *dare* also appears in [3] negative imperatives:

[1] *You **need**n't finish that tonight.* [2] ***Need** you ask?*
[1a] *I **dare**n't ask. She didn't **dare** (to) tell him.* [2a] ***Dare** I ask?*
[3] *Don't you **dare** tell him!*

Task 13.2

1. Explain the error in **You needn't a visa.*
2. Which of the two sentences below expresses general (non-)requirement?. Which expresses a more immediate (non-)requirement? Suggest a suitable situation and a following 'reason' sentence in an imagined dialogue for each.
   a) *You needn't lock your car.*
   b) *You don't need to lock your car.*

13.7.2 *Used to* and *would* – functions

Used to and *would* describe past habitual actions/states (strongly implying that these have ceased).

Used to often introduces a topic and *would* often follows it up:

TOPIC: Sue **used to** live in Torquay. She **used to** take family photos in people's homes.
FOLLOW UP: Every day she **would** drive to a house and set up her equipment.

There is another functional difference which is revealed on carrying out the task below.

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15 Questions

15.1 Types and form

Task 15.1 Two of the rows below are mismatched. Match them correctly.

TYPE OF QUESTION	EXAMPLE
1. **Yes/no question** with verb *be*	a) *Are you in Amnesty International?*
2. **Yes/no question** with modal aux. verb	b) *Can you smell the lilac?*
3. **Yes/no question** with primary aux. verb	c) *Do you eat snails? Have they gone?*
4. **Wh-question**, the wh- word being the object	d) *Who(m) can she go with?*
5. **Wh- question**, the wh- word being the subject	e) *What goes 'zzub zzub'?*
6. **Tag question** with primary aux. verb	f) *You wouldn't tell, would you?*
7. **Tag question** with modal aux. verb	g) *You liked Sinéad, didn't you?*

Yes/no questions are probably the first type that students acquire, mostly using the verb *be*. As a practice activity a game of '20 questions' or 'What's my job/hobby?' can be effective.

The **'dummy' auxiliary *do*** is brought into service to form questions (and negatives) in English if the verb is not *be* or there is no other auxiliary verb in the structure (see 23.1).

Wh- questions even include questions starting with *how.* Teachers ask so many questions that good input is contained in everyday classroom language. For free practice, information-gap activities such as Spot the Difference and Describe and Draw are effective.

Tag questions are perhaps the last type of question that is acquired, being a little difficult in structure and being inessential in communicating facts. Tag questions seek confirmation or agreement, or are used for reproach, humour, etc. The distinction is carried by rising or falling intonation.

Inversion (the reverse order of the subject and aux. verb – see 9.2.5) is a feature of all English direct questions, except when the wh- word is the subject of the sentence (type 5 above), or when the question is an **echo question**, e.g. *You eat snails?/You eat <u>what</u>?*

Task 15.2

Referring to the table above,

1. Which type of wh-question does not require an aux. verb (apart from one with the verb *be*?
2. What other wh-word can be used in type 5?

15.2 *Have you got* and *do you have*

These are used more or less equally, although *have got* is more informal. *Have got* is not the present perfect of *got* here, but simply means *have.* Past tense forms of *have got*, e.g. **I had got enough money,* are not fully acceptable. Answers to the respective forms are usually *Yes I have* and *Yes I do*.

Have you a pen? is acceptable but of low frequency, therefore not usually taught.

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17 Reported speech

17.1 Definition

In reported speech (also called *indirect speech*) we report what was said. The most common verbs used for this are *say, tell, ask*, *explain,* even *think*, etc, and ones met at higher levels would include *suggest, hint, boast, demand, insist,* etc. (for *suggest/recommend* type verbs see 19.9).

We could repeat the speaker's words (direct speech) where these are important, or for drama or immediacy:

He said, "Let's get the hell out of here!"

But normally we use reported speech, and this allows us to colour the utterance somewhat:

He said it might be a good idea to vacate the premises.

However, there are structure rules which generally apply.

17.2 Reported statements – back shift

In reported statements the subordinate clause following the reporting verb has the form of a noun clause. We can call this subordinate clause a reported speech clause.

A typical rule covered by coursebooks is: "When the reporting verb in the main clause is in the past tense, **back-shift** occurs, i.e. the verb in the reported speech clause changes from present to past, present perfect to past perfect, or past to past perfect as the case requires." But of course this rule need not always apply:

DIRECT STATEMENT	REPORTED STATEMENT
[1] *"I'll be there at eight."*	She said (that) she'd/she'll be here at eight.
[2] *"I've seen better."*	She remarked that she had/has seen better.
[3] *"I saw Nessie last year."*	He told me (that) he had seen/saw the monster the previous year.

In [1], if the time of the reporting is still before eight o'clock, *She said she'll be here* is equally acceptable, though *would* can be used to imply some mistrust. After eight, however, only *would* is acceptable. [2] is similarly flexible. In [3] the past simple is an alternative where ambiguity would not arise .

17.3 Reported questions

In forming most direct questions subject-operator inversion occurs in the subordinate clause, i.e. the (first) auxiliary verb or *be* is moved from post-subject to pre-subject position. When the question is reported, however, affirmative word order is restored.

17.3.1 Reported wh- questions

DIRECT WH- QUESTION	REPORTED WH- QUESTION
"Where have all the flowers gone?"	She wants to know where all the flowers have gone.
"Where have all the flowers gone?"	She asked me/wondered/wanted to know where all the flowers had gone.

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18 Relative clauses

18.1 Types; terminology

There are mainly two types of relative clause, **identifying** and **non-identifying**. Some grammars use the term *defining* or *restrictive* instead of *identifying*.

In this chapter we also look at reduced relative clauses and cleft sentences.

18.2 Identifying relative clauses

We can put an adjective before a noun to modify/identify it, e.g. *The **early** boat carries the mail.* We may also post-modify the noun, usually with a relative clause, e.g. *The boat **that leaves early** carries the mail.* This modification is necessary to identify the boat that the speaker mentions, and this type of clause is called an **identifying** relative clause. Become acquainted with the rules governing choice of relative pronoun by carrying out the task below.

THINGS	1. *The piano **that went for fifty quid** has woodworm.* 2. *The piano **which was owned by Chopin** is not on display.*	…….
	3. *The boat **whose sails are ripped** will be last.*	…….
	4. *The boat **I saw** didn't have rowlocks.*	…….
	5. *That's the tower **where Strongbow married Aoife.***	…….
PEOPLE	6. *The woman **who refused to give up her seat** was brave.* 7. *There's the hunk **that lit your fire**.*	…….
	8. *The woman **whose son is a lexicographer** would like a word.*	…….
	9. *The chiropodist **you hired** hasn't put a foot wrong.*	…….

Task 18.1 Put the letters of the rules below into the correct cells in the right hand column of the table above. Some letters will go in more than one cell.

a) The relative pronoun *that* or *which* can refer back to things (*which* sounds more formal).
b) The relative pronoun *who* or *that* can refer back to people (*that* sounds a little less respectful).
c) The possessive relative determiner can refer back to people or things.
d) The relative adverbs *where* and *when* are often preferred over *in which, on which,* where applicable.
e) If the relative pronoun is the object of the verb in the relative clause (although it goes before it) then it can be deleted.

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5 The definitions in column A are ungrammatical. Correct each one by ~~crossing out~~ one unnecessary word. Then match the definitions with a word from column B.

A		B	
a)	An animal that ~~it~~ can smell water five kilometres away.	1	A saddle.
b)	A person who he studies birds.	2	A kangaroo.
c)	An animal that it sleeps standing up.	3	A mosquito.
d)	The only animal – apart from humans – which it gets sunburn.	4	An elephant.
e)	A name for people who they are afraid of spiders.	5	An ornithologist.
f)	The thing that you sit on it when you ride a horse.	6	A pig.
g)	An insect that you get malaria from it.	7	A horse.
h)	An animal whose name it means 'I don't understand.'	8	Arachnophobic.

6 Use the ideas in the boxes (and your own) to write down three true statements about your feelings or the feelings of people you know well. Compare your statements with a partner.

I My mother My father My friend etc.	+	love(s) hate(s)	+	people women animals shops etc.	men children bars rooms	+	who which that	+	are funny / serious. talk too quietly / loudly. are very cheap / expensive. drive too slowly / fast. are very big / small etc.

From *Inside Out Pre-intermediate* by S. Kay et al (Macmillan). Identifying relative clauses.

18.3 Non-identifying relative clause

18.3.1 With the antecedent being a noun/phrase

Unlike identifying relative clauses, non-identifying relative clauses are not essential for an understanding of the sentence, as the antecedent in the main clause needs no identifying – it is either [1] a proper noun (name of a person, place, institution, etc.), [2] known to the interlocuters, or [3] already identified in some way:

[1] *Roberto Calvi,* ***who was known as 'God's banker'****, was found hanged in London.*
[2] *... and then someone stole his bike,* ***which he'd only bought the week before****.*
[3] *It establishes a Union,* ***within which the policies of the Member States shall be …***

Task 18.2 Fill in the blanks:

A non-identifying relative clause is set off from the (a) _____ clause by a comma/commas; in speech, a pause and change in (b) _____ are used. Compare with identifying relative clauses.

The relative pronoun (c) '_____' is not used in non-identifying clauses.

In either type of relative clause the object form of *who* must be used after a preposition, e.g. *the man with* (d) _____ *she was living.*

18.3.2 With the antecedent being the main clause

In this case there is only one pronoun used: *which.*

[1] *He offered me some peanuts,* ***which was very strange*** *(as he didn't have any).*
[2] *Anne described the projector bulb,* ***which shed some light on the matter****.*

Sentence [2] can be ambiguous. The intended meaning is that it was Anne's description of the bulb that shed light on the matter, not the bulb itself. However, the use in English of identical relative pronouns for different types of relative clause gives rise to sometimes comical interpretations.

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19 Conditionals

19.1 Definition

Although we have referred to conditional *clauses* in chapter 16, the term *conditional* usually refers to any *sentence* with an *if* clause and a main or result clause.

In TESOL three types of conditional are given prominence. As well as these the coursebooks may also present the 'zero' conditional so this is included in our table below. Mixed conditionals are shown later.

19.2 Table of the three conditionals, with the zero conditional

	IF CLAUSE	RESULT (MAIN) CLAUSE
Zero conditional	PRESENT (/PAST) TENSE *If (= when(ever)) we **have** the money* FUNCTION: fact, circumstance, logic	PRESENT (/PAST) TENSE *we **go** to the movies.*
1st conditional	PRESENT TENSE *If he **studies** this book* FUNCTION: future probable	FUTURE *he **will** pass.*
2nd conditional	PAST TENSE *If you **smoked** less* FUNCTION: unreal for the present/future	*WOULD* *you **would** feel better.*
3rd conditional	PAST PERFECT TENSE *If I **had known** you were coming* FUNCTION: unreal for the past	*WOULD HAVE* *I **would have** baked a cake.*

Please note that of course these are not all taught at the same level; the common timing in the ELT coursebooks is pre-intermediate, intermediate and upper intermediate for 1st, 2nd and 3rd conditional respectively (the zero conditional may be acquired without any direct teaching). See the appendix for a view of all levels with their grammatical items.

19.3 The zero conditional

Besides the present tense (see table above) a past tense may also be contained in a zero conditional, conveying a fact, logical conclusion, etc.:

[1] *If (= when(ever)) we had the money we went to the movies.*
[2] *Well, if he was there I didn't see him.*
[3] *It cuts out if (= when(ever)) you put your foot to the floor.*
[4] *If it's Tuesday it must be Paris.*
[5] *If you are married you don't have to do military service.*

Students rarely have difficulty in acquiring the zero conditional, so please respect the dictum: IF THEY KNOW IT, DON'T TEACH IT. That being said, *if* is translatable into German as 'wenn', resulting in errors like ?*When you are married you don't have to do military service.* Be prepared to explain, with examples of course, that *when* means a time, often an expected time of completion, whereas *if* conveys conditionality.

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19.4 1st Conditional

	IF CLAUSE	RESULT (MAIN) CLAUSE
1st Conditional	PRESENT TENSE *If he **studies** this book* FUNCTION: future probable	FUTURE *he **will** pass.*

The verb in the *if* clause is in the present tense (usually simple, but continuous and perfect are also possible), the verb in the result clause is in the future tense. This future 'tense' of course can have many forms besides the usual *will*, e.g. the modal *might/could* etc, indeed *going to* or present continuous where suitable, e.g. *If it rains we're going (to go) to the cinema.*:

[1] *If you **study** this book, you **will** have a good grounding in grammar.*
[2] *We**'ll**/we **might** go to the cinema if it **rains**.*
[3] *If it **should** (happen to) **rain,** we**'ll** go to the cinema.*
[4] *If you **see** Nora, **give** her this note.*

Task 19.1 Fill in the blanks. The numbers refer to the examples above.

1-3. The 1st conditional is often given the functional/time title (a) *f_____ conditional*. It could also be called the *quite probable conditional.* In any event these terms should only be used when required, for example when comparing 1st and 2nd conditionals, which is not a communicatively valuable exercise but may be requested for exam preparation.

1. A common error is **If you* (b) _____ *study this book*. You should point out that English does not use a future tense in a subordinate *if* or time clause, or as a student might put it: "no *will* after *if* or *when."* There is an exception: *If you will please take your seats ...* , used for a request, deferring ostensibly to the *willingness* of the listeners – but to avoid confusion don't introduce this till later.
2. Regarding punctuation, the (c) _____ is optional when the (d) _____ clause comes first. The other way round it would signal an afterthought.
3. *Should* and/or *happen to* is sometimes inserted in the *if* clause to convey that the probability of the occurrence is (e) sl_____. *Should* may begin the sentence when a more formal (f) r_____ is required, e.g. *Should it (happen to) rain ...* .
4. The (g) im_____ in the main clause is a 'hidden' future, so this is a 1st conditional.

Unless roughly means *except if,* usually occurring in 1st or 2nd conditional structures.
Phrases like *supposing/provided that, as long as, imagine,* etc, can also trigger conditional structures.

Teaching note 19.1

Coursebooks commonly teach the first conditional with the situation of someone embarking on a journey/activity that their friend/mother thinks is risky, e.g. the couple moving to Spain (New Headway Intermediate) or the son going hitch-hiking (New Cambridge English 1). The dialogue typically goes:
A: ***We're moving to Italy.***
B: ***Are you sure you're doing the right thing? What will you do if you can't find a good home/if you don't make any friends?*** **[etc.]**
A: ***Don't worry. If we don't ... we'll ...***

Future time clauses with *when, as soon as,* etc, may be introduced:
B: ***How will I know you're okay?***
A: ***Don't worry, Mum. I'll text you as soon as I arrive ...***

Dialogues/role plays allow students to have fun while improving their speaking skills. Try to add to/extend the ones in your coursebook.

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19.5 2nd Conditional

	IF CLAUSE	RESULT (MAIN) CLAUSE
2nd Conditional	PAST TENSE *If you **smoked** less* FUNCTION: unreal for the present/future	*WOULD* *you **would** feel better.*

Also called the 'unreal' or 'contrary to fact' conditional, the 2nd conditional is a little difficult to acquire because of its peculiar use of the past tense for a hypothetical event.

The verb in the *if* clause is in the past tense form, the verb in the result clause is preceded by the modal *would* or *could*, or *might*:

[1] *If I **had** a million dollars I'**d** buy a helicopter.*
[2] *What **would** you do if you **won** the lottery?*
[3] *If I **were** you, I **would** recommend this book to my friends.*
[4] *If Elvis **were/was** alive, he'**d** gyrate in his grave.*
[5] ***Had** I their support I **could** change the leadership overnight.*
[6] *John, if you **could/would** turn on the light there, please.*

Task 19.2 Fill in the blanks. The numbers refer to the examples above.

1. This is a typical example of the use of the 2nd conditional for situations (in the *if* clause) which, for most people, are (a) _____ [some options available here].
2. This is a typical example of the use of the 2nd conditional for highly (b) im_____ events (in the *if* clause).
3. Instead of *was* after the 1st (c) _____ singular, *were* is widely preferred. This *were* is a relic of the (d) sub_____ mood, used in many languages to denote unreal events. Note also that in BrE (e) _____ is sometimes used instead of *would* in this type of sentence (subject pronoun in 1st person in main clause).
4. With the 3rd person singular there is a freer choice concerning *were* or *was*; however, (f) _____ is still more colloquial than (g) _____ .
5. For a more formal register, *had* may be inverted with the subject (the *if* being omitted). This is also possible, though less frequently done, with another verb in the list, which is (h) _____ .
6. This 'unfinished' 2nd conditional is a very popular form of polite (i) r_____ , though rarely included in coursebooks! *Could/would* may be regarded as the past of *can/will* here.

Teaching note 19.2

Make sure your examples of the 2nd conditional refer to unreal or highly improbable events. "What would you do if you won the lottery?" is fine, but in many contexts so is "What will you do if you win the raffle?" (1st conditional for probable events).

Check if your students understand the word *imagine* or even *hypothesis;* this often helps to explain the function of the 2nd conditional (a brief translation of a model sentence may also help.)

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20 The infinitive and -ing form

20.1 Terminology

This chapter looks at various structures involving the infinitive or -ing form.

We have met the infinitive before (1.4, 17.4). In this chapter unless otherwise stated the infinitive is the full infinitive. Also in this chapter, the term **-ing form** is used instead of **gerund** to reflect the terminology of some ELT materials (e.g. *English Grammar in Use* by R. Murphy).

A quick reminder: the gerund can take the place of a noun/-phrase (see 1.11). This includes of course the position of object, which follows most of the main verbs in 20.2 below.

20.2 Verb + infinitive or -ing form

When two verbs come together (without a pause/comma) the second is either an infinitive or an -ing form. Most of the difficulties that students have to contend with regarding choice and meaning are shown below. More examples are contained in course/resource books:

[1] **He enjoys **to go** to the zoo.	*He enjoys **going** to the zoo.*
[2] *They like **to play**.*	*They like **playing**.*
[3] ?*Start **to walk**.*	*Start **walking**.*
[4] *Are they starting **to play**?*	**Are they **starting** playing?*
[5] *We stopped **to rest**.*	*We stopped **resting**.*
[6] *We tried **to push** it.*	*We tried **pushing** it.*
[7] *I won't forget **to write**.*	*I'll never forget **writing** that.*

Task 20.1 Fill in the blanks. The numbers refer to the examples above.

In [1] there is no free choice. The verb *enjoy* may not be followed by the (a) _____ .

In [2] if there is any difference in meaning (and there isn't in AmE) it is that the (b) _____ suggests the activity is tentative or occasional.

In [3] we see that the 'fulfilment' or 'extended' semantic property of the (c) _____ makes it a better prospect for the imperative.

In [4] we see that English prefers not to run an -ing participle and (d) _____ together.

In [5] we see that the verb *stop* can be followed by either an object, here in the form of the (e) _____ or a reason/purpose clause, here in the form of the (f) _____ . (All other verbs in this list are followed by an object.)

In [6] we see that after the verb *try,* the (g) _____ indicates 'experiment'.

In [7] we witness a classic case of how the (h) _____ indicates 'future' or 'speculation', whereas the (i) _____ indicates 'fulfilment'.

20.3 Confusion of the infinitive of purpose with *for* + -ing of function

[1] *I went to the shop **to buy** a comb. ; ?I went to the shop **for buying** a comb.*

[2] *?A spanner is a tool **to turn** nuts. ; A spanner is a tool **for turning** nuts.*

Most learners seem to include the erroneous form in [1] in their interlanguage. This is hardly surprising, when we hear *Go to the shop for a comb; What did you go to the shop for?* etc.

The simple explanation of the rule will help, but don't forget to follow with meaningful practice:

purpose/intention of the person (agent) > INFINITIVE;
function/use of the instrument > -ING FORM.

(Some overlap is possible of course.)

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25.3 Other uses of the apostrophe

25.3.1 Contractions (short forms)

These are in the written form, reflecting the spoken form. The apostrophe indicates that one or more letters have been left out, e.g.

can't I'm you're they're there's it's we've

Some forms are irregular, e.g. *won't, shan't*, and there are some spoken forms which are still not acceptable in written form, e.g. *there're, couldn't've*.

The dropping of weak vowels, syllables, etc, in speech is known as **elision**, e.g. (spoken) /*remark'bly*/. Don't confuse with **ellipsis**, the leaving out of a word (see 16.2.1).

25.3.2 Plural of numbers, letters and words

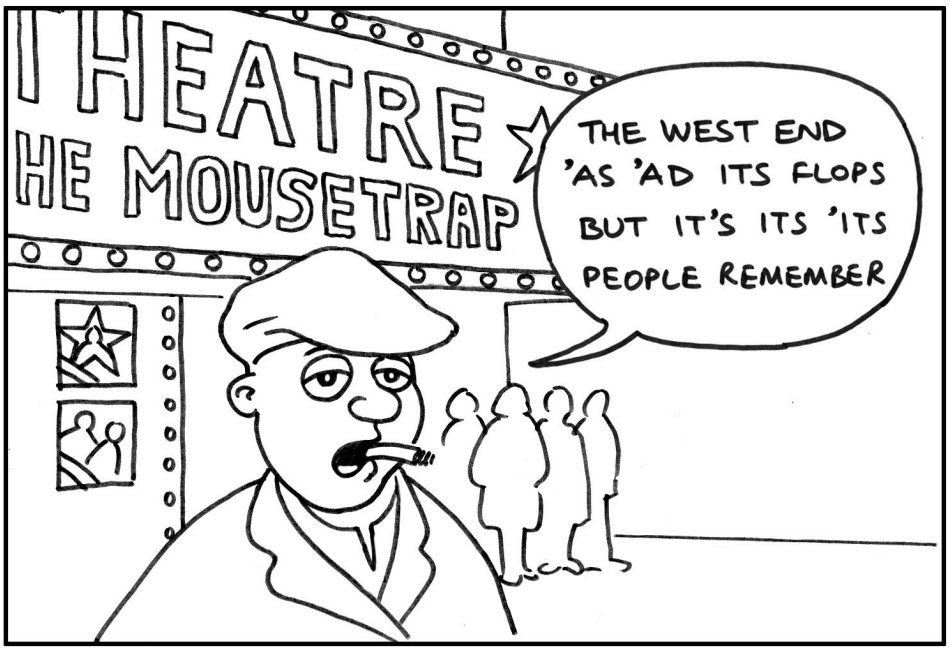
As well as a creeping indiscriminate use of *it's* (see 7.2.1), what is known as the 'grocer's plural', e.g. **apple's, pear's,* etc, seems to be unavoidable in the streets.

What stymies the improving grocer, however, is the (correct) use of the apostrophe for the plural of numbers, letters, abbreviations and some words, e.g.

*in the 60's (*or *60s) drop your h's enough M.P.'s too many* hence's

25.3.3 Shop and business names

The grocer's, the butcher's, the newsagent's, the doctor's, etc. Unfortunately, for language teachers at least, specialist shops are being replaced by the supermarket, with a consequent reduction in the legitimacy of much customer - shopkeeper role-play.



Apostrophes are the 'allmark of a Londoner.

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CORRECTION (LESSON PLAN)

Presentation:

Presentation is the early stage of a lesson; it consists mainly of teacher-student interaction in feeding, eliciting, explaining and exemplifying targeted language.

1. Thank the student for her contribution and soft correct with, e.g. *So, you don't like cabbage, Christina. What about potatoes? And Paella? … I love Paella too. You know what I don't like? … I don't like garlic. Ugh. Onions are okay, but I don't like garlic* (draw garlic or translate if monolingual class).
2. Write the correct version on the board. Say the sentence at almost normal speed. Underline or otherwise highlight the relevant parts: *Christina doesn't like cabbage.* Under that add *I don't like garlic* (note that the referent for the 'I' on a board should be clear - hence the speech balloon).
3. Beside each sentence include a drawing to aid memory and add enjoyment. This allows further input, e.g. *Now here's Christina, pointing to some cabbage. She really doesn't like cabbage. No, sir!* Note: **don't be afraid to draw** - even if your attempts are awful it's always fun and encourages participation. Chat and elicit vocab, spelling, etc, from students while drawing.
4. Elicit another example for the board from a student. *What about sports, hobbies? Seung, do you like fishing?* If Seung just says 'No' or 'Yes' accept this. *Ah, so you like fishing, that's nice. I'm afraid I don't; I fall asleep. What about football, tennis, skiing?* Now Seung cannot just say 'no' or 'yes'. Write the third model sentence on the board, with a drawing. This can be positive rather than negative, for comparison: *Seung likes fishing.*

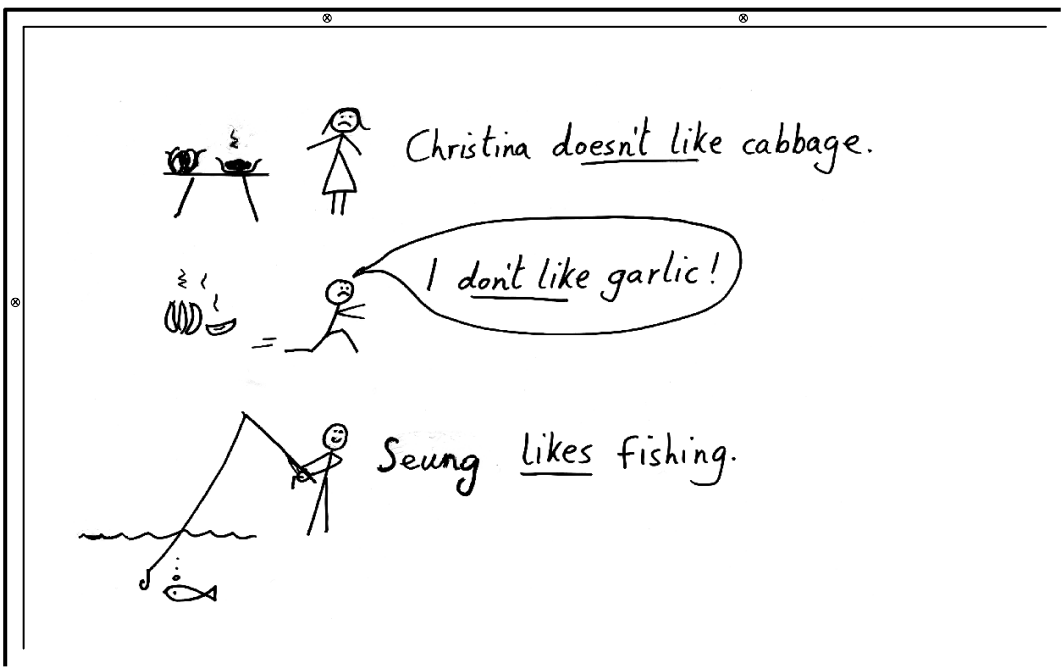


Figure 5. Board work for presentation and controlled practice of *don't like*.

Controlled practice:

Controlled practice is generally understood to consist mainly of repetition of phrases/sentences containing the targeted language, with hard correction (hard correction is where you point out that an error has been made, clearly 'model' the phrase and ask for another effort).

How much drilling is done largely depends on the students and their needs. Some nationalities and age groups like 'sing-song' choral repetition; others find it strange. For these latter controlled practice usually means intensive practice in the form of gap-filling or matching etc, individual or collaborative, followed by checking around and hard correcting any serious errors. Your coursebook or resource book would provide these types of exercises for most grammar points.

For this class we will imagine learners who enjoy choral repetition and whose pronunciation would benefit from same:

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APPENDIX - LEVEL GUIDELINES

This table comprises mainly the grammatical contents of some popular coursebooks. The order of items within the levels is not fixed.
Items may be taught at a previous level depending on the coursebook used or learners' requirements and aptitudes. Learners can understand but not produce many higher level items.

BEGINNER	ELEMENTARY	PRE-INTERMEDIATE	INTERMEDIATE	UPR. INTERMEDIATE	ADVANCED
Greetings, introductions (personal pronouns + *be*)	Polite requests, offers and refusals	Present perfect simple	Present perfect continuous; time preps. *since* and *for*	Verb + gerund or infinitive, e.g. *remember writing; remember to write*	Recycle relative clauses, incl. with prep. + rel. pronoun
Articles *a/the* (non-generic ref.)	Likes/dislikes	Making suggestions	Modal probability/deduction (present and past) e.g. *must/ could be, must/could have done*	3rd conditional	Verb + obj. + infinitive(/-ing), e.g. *make him go; force him to go; saw him go/going*
Jobs, nationalities	Modals *can* + *have to*	Modals of perm., oblig.,ability	2nd conditional	Recycle modal perfects, incl. *needn't have*	Recycle 3rd conditional, incl. inversion. Mixed conditionals
What + *be* questions (pres.)	Past simple of common regular and irregular verbs	Time clauses	*Is like, looks like*	*I wish* + past, past perfect	Inversion after negative adverbial, e.g. *Seldom had I seen …*
(Alphabet)	Past continuous	Zero and 1st conditional (+ 2nd)	Reciprocal & reflexive pronouns	Future perfect	Cleft sentences
Days, months, seasons	Wh- questions (simple)	Apologising, inviting, ordering, advising	Recycle defining rel. clause	Non-defining relative clause	Participle clauses
Colours, numbers, time	Yes/no questions with 'do'	Indefinite pronouns, compound *some/anyone/body, no/everybody*	Basic phrasal verbs	Recycle phrasal verbs, incl. 3-word types	Preparatory 'it', e.g. *It surprises me that…*
Giving directions (*Where* + *be* questions (pres.))	Descriptive adjectives	Defining relative clause	Recycle future forms	Passive – perfect, future & continuous. + with *get*	Passive – infinitive, + with ditransitive verbs
There is/are, + question and negative form	Comparative and superlative adjectives	Recycle question forms, incl. yes/no type with modals	Quantifiers *little/few*	Correlative conjunctions, e.g. *either … or*	Present subjunctive, e.g. *if need be*
Quantifiers *some/any*	Introduction to future forms: *will* and *going to*	Passive – present simple (+ past)	-ing adjs. & past participial adjs.	*Be used to* + gerund	Ellipsis
Basic countable and uncountable nouns (food)	Quantifiers *many/much, a little/a few, enough*	Recycle future forms, incl. pres. cont. for arrangement	Passive – present and past	Causative, e.g. *Have/make John repair it*	Complex discourse markers
Basic prepositions	Basic adverbs of manner	Adverbs *already* and *yet;* basic quantity adverbs	Question tags	Phrasal modals, e.g. *had better, would rather*	Compound adjectives
Present continuous	Semi-modal *have to*	Basic conjunctions and link words	Stative verbs	Further discourse markers	'That' clauses, e.g. *the fact/news that …*
Present simple	Time phrases and clauses, e.g. *when I arrived*	Pro-form *so*, e.g. *I think so*	Pro-form *not*, e.g. *I hope not*	Infinitive of purpose, e.g. *I went there to buy a paper*	Adverb + verb collocation, e.g. *categorically deny*
Possessive *'s* + poss. adjs.	*Whose.* Possessive pronouns	Comparative *as X as*	Basic discourse markers	*As* vs. *like; such a* vs. *so*	Recycle phrasal modals, incl. *be to, be apt to,* etc.
Sports/leisure, parts of body	Degree adverbs *too, very*	*Used to* (past habit or state)	Non-gradable adjectives	Common idioms	Formulae & expressions, e.g. *More's the pity, bored stiff*
House rooms & furniture	Basic frequency adverbs	Reported statements and commands	*Would* for past habit	*Say/tell*	
Demonstrative adjectives	Reflexive pronouns (sing.)	Instructions (e.g. for recipes), with indefinite pro., generic *you*	Reported questions	Verb + obj + prep. e.g. *accuse* sbdy *of*	
Place adverbs *here, there*	Ordinal numbers, dates	Clothing, pair nouns	Pro-forms: *So/neither do I*		
Modal *can/can't*	Personality adjectives, job & routine activity vocab.		Verb/adj + prep. e.g. *insist on, jealous of*		
Would like + noun/-phrase (requests)			Past perfect		
			Partitives, *each of, most of,* etc.		

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Reference is generally to chapter (and section), sometimes to a task.

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